A Fast Algorithm for Generating All Triangulations of Biconnected Plane Graphs

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Abstract

In this paper, we deal with the problem of generating all triangulations for biconnected planar graph. We give an algorithm for generating all triangulations for a biconnected planar graph G of n vertices. Our algorithm establishes a double recursive tree structure among all triangulations of G, and generates each triangulation in O(1) amortized time using O(n) space. This is the first algorithm that achieves constant time generation for biconnected planar graphs. The key innovations of our algorithm are: (1) the concept of *safe root vertex* for each face, which guarantees the existence of a root triangulation that does not create multi-edges when combined with previously triangulated faces; (2) the use of local genealogical trees for each face, allowing independent face processing while maintaining global chord consistency; and (3) a dynamic global chord set to efficiently track and prevent multi-edge conflicts during the triangulation process. We prove the correctness, completeness, and efficiency of our algorithm, and provide implementation details demonstrating its practical effectiveness.

1 Introduction

Triangulation of planar graphs is a fundamental problem in computational geometry with wide-ranging applications in VLSI floorplanning [5], computational geometry [3], and graph drawing [7]. While finding a single triangulation of a planar graph can be done efficiently, the problem of *generating all* triangulations presents significant computational challenges. This paper addresses the problem of exhaustively generating all triangulations of biconnected planar graphs—a problem that has remained open despite substantial progress on restricted graph classes.

1.1 Motivation and Challenges

The enumeration of all triangulations is crucial for applications requiring exploration of the entire solution space, such as finding optimal triangulations under various cost metrics, studying structural properties of triangulation spaces, and analyzing the diameter of triangulation graphs. However, several fundamental difficulties make this problem challenging:

Exponential solution space. The number of triangulations for a given graph can be exponential in the number of vertices, making explicit storage and exhaustive enumeration computationally expensive. Any practical algorithm must generate triangulations on-the-fly without storing all of them simultaneously.

Duplicate avoidance. Naive enumeration approaches often generate the same triangulation multiple times. Traditional methods for avoiding duplicates require storing previously generated triangulations and performing isomorphism checks, which introduces substantial memory overhead (often exponential space) and adds at least logarithmic time complexity per triangulation for lookup operations.

Efficiency requirements. For enumeration algorithms, the gold standard is to achieve output-sensitive time complexity, ideally constant or polynomial time per generated solution. This requires careful algorithm design to avoid redundant computation.

1.2 Prior Work and the Triconnected Case

Classical enumeration algorithms employ various strategies to address these challenges. The generate-and-filter approach produces candidate objects and removes duplicates through filtering, but requires significant memory. Orderly generation [9] ensures canonical representations through sophisticated techniques but involves expensive isomorphism testing. The reverse search paradigm [1] addresses memory concerns by implicitly defining a spanning tree over the solution space, enabling polynomial-space enumeration, but typically requires $O(n^2)$ time per solution for triangulation problems.

For the restricted case of *convex polygons*, Hurtado and Noy [4] constructed a graph representing all triangulations and studied its structural properties, though their approach requires generating all triangulations of smaller polygons first. For more general graphs, Li and Nakano [6] presented an algorithm for generating all biconnected "based" plane triangulations with at most n vertices, but it builds incrementally from graphs with fewer vertices, making it inefficient when only triangulations of a specific n-vertex graph are needed.

The breakthrough for *triconnected* plane graphs came from Parvez, Rahman, and Nakano [8], who developed an elegant algorithm achieving $O(1)$ time per triangulation using $O(n)$ space. Their key insight is to organize all triangulations into a tree structure where parent-child relationships correspond to single edge flip operations. By carefully defining a unique *generating chord* for each triangulation, they ensure that flipping this chord produces a unique parent, thereby avoiding duplicates without explicit storage or isomorphism testing. The algorithm decomposes the graph into faces, triangulates each face independently, and combines results efficiently.

1.3 The Multi-Edge Problem in Biconnected Graphs

The Parvez-Rahman-Nakano algorithm critically relies on the graph being *triconnected*. Triconnectivity guarantees that any two faces share at most their boundary edges—they cannot share internal chords. This property enables independent face triangulation without conflicts.

However, for general *biconnected* graphs (which have connectivity exactly 2), this guarantee fails. Biconnected graphs may contain *separation pairs*—pairs of vertices whose removal disconnects the graph. Faces separated by such pairs can share internal structure beyond boundary edges. When triangulating faces independently, chords added in one face may conflict with chords needed in another face, potentially creating **multi-edges** (multiple edges between the same vertex pair), which violates the simple graph property.

This **multi-edge problem** is the fundamental obstacle preventing direct application of the triconnected algorithm to biconnected graphs. Simply applying the face-by-face triangulation approach of Parvez et al. to biconnected graphs can yield invalid triangulations with parallel edges, making the extension non-trivial.

1.4 Our Contribution

In this paper, we present the first algorithm that generates all triangulations of biconnected planar graphs in $O(1)$ amortized time per triangulation using $O(n)$ space. Our algorithm successfully extends the tree-of-triangulations framework to the biconnected case by introducing novel techniques to resolve the multi-edge problem:

1. **Safe root vertex selection:** For each face, we introduce the concept of a *safe root vertex*—a vertex from which all initial chords can be drawn without creating multi-edges with previously triangulated faces. We prove that such vertices always exist and provide an efficient method to find them.

2. **Local genealogical trees:** Instead of a single global tree, we construct *local genealogical trees* for each face, organizing all valid triangulations of that face. These local trees are explored via depth-first search during recursive face processing.

3. **Dynamic global chord tracking:** We maintain a *global chord set* that tracks all chords added across all faces during the recursive process. This enables efficient detection and prevention of multi-edge conflicts when triangulating each face.

We rigorously prove that our algorithm guarantees:

- **Completeness:** Every valid triangulation is generated exactly once (no duplicates, no omissions).
- **Correctness:** All generated triangulations are valid (no multi-edges, proper triangulation).
- **Efficiency:** $O(1)$ amortized time per triangulation with $O(n)$ space.

We also provide implementation details and experimental results demonstrating the algorithm's practical effectiveness on various graph instances.

1.5 Paper Organization

The remainder of this paper is organized as follows: Section 2 provides essential definitions and preliminaries on planar graphs and triangulations. Section 3 presents our algorithm in detail, including the safe root vertex selection, local genealogical tree construction, and the main recursive enumeration procedure. Section 4 provides rigorous proofs of correctness and completeness. Section 5 analyzes time and space complexity. Section 6 discusses implementation details and experimental results. Section 7 concludes with future research directions.

1.6 Triangulation Enumeration

Early work on triangulation enumeration focused on specific graph classes. Chazelle [2] gave a linear-time algorithm for finding *a* triangulation of a simple polygon, but not for enumerating all triangulations.

Hurtado and Noy [4] studied the graph of triangulations of convex polygons, where vertices represent triangulations and edges represent edge flips. They established theoretical properties but did not provide efficient enumeration algorithms for arbitrary n-vertex polygons without first generating all smaller cases.

Li and Nakano [6] developed an algorithm for generating all biconnected plane triangulations with at most n vertices, but this requires generating all smaller triangulations first—inefficient when only triangulations of exactly n vertices are needed.

1.7 Reverse Search and Tree-Based Enumeration

The reverse search paradigm [1] has been successfully applied to many enumeration problems. Avis presented algorithms for enumerating triangulations using reverse search, but these achieve $O(n^2)$ time per triangulation for cycles [1].

Orderly generation [9] avoids duplicates by outputting only canonical representations, but requires expensive isomorphism testing.

1.8 The Parvez-Rahman-Nakano Algorithm

The breakthrough work of Parvez, Rahman, and Nakano [8] introduced the *tree of triangulations* for triconnected plane graphs, achieving $O(1)$ time per triangulation. Their key insights include:

- **Tree Structure:** Triangulations form a tree where each child is generated from its parent by a single edge flip.
- **Root Triangulation:** The tree is rooted at a triangulation where all chords emanate from a single vertex.
- **Generating Chord:** Each triangulation has a unique *generating chord*—the leftmost chord that can be flipped.
- **Parent-Child Relationship:** Flipping the generating chord produces the parent, ensuring unique relationships and no duplicates.

However, this algorithm is specifically designed for *triconnected* graphs. The triconnectivity guarantee ensures that faces share only boundary edges, preventing multi-edge conflicts. For biconnected graphs without this guarantee, the algorithm fails.

1.9 The Multi-Edge Problem

In biconnected graphs, faces can share internal chords from previous triangulation steps. When triangulating a new face, adding a chord that already exists as a chord in a different face creates a multi-edge, violating the simple graph property. This is the fundamental barrier preventing direct application of the Parvez-Rahman-Nakano algorithm to biconnected graphs.

Our algorithm solves this problem through safe root selection and global chord tracking.

Aspect	Triconnected (PRN)	Biconnected (Ours)
Tree Structure	Single global tree of triangulations	Local trees per face + DFS combination
Root Selection	Any vertex can be root	Must find safe root vertex
Multi-edge Problem	Does not occur (guaranteed by triconnectivity)	Explicitly handled via GlobalChordSet
Face Processing	Can process independently	Must process sequentially with backtracking
Chord Conflicts	No conflicts between faces	Dynamic conflict checking required
Complexity	$O(1)$ per triangulation	$O(1)$ amortized per triangulation
Applicability	Only triconnected graphs	All biconnected graphs

Table 1: Comparison of triconnected and biconnected triangulation algorithms

1.10 Comparison: Triconnected vs. Biconnected Approach

The key differences between the Parvez-Rahman-Nakano algorithm for triconnected graphs and our algorithm for biconnected graphs are:

Our algorithm generalizes the triconnected case: when applied to a triconnected graph, every vertex is a safe root (since no chords exist between faces), and the algorithm behaves similarly to the Parvez-Rahman-Nakano algorithm.

2 Preliminaries

In this section, we establish the fundamental graph-theoretic concepts and notation used throughout this paper.

2.1 Basic Graph Theory

Let $G = (V, E)$ denote a connected simple graph with vertex set V and edge set E. We denote an edge connecting vertices v_i and v_j in V by (v_i, v_j). The *degree* of a vertex v is the number of edges incident to v in G.

The *connectivity* $\kappa(G)$ of a graph G is the minimum number of vertices whose removal results in either a disconnected graph or a single-vertex graph. A graph is k-*connected* if $\kappa(G) \geq k$. In particular, a graph is *biconnected* if it is 2-connected (i.e., it has no cut vertices) and *triconnected* if it is 3-connected (i.e., it has no separation pairs).

2.2 Planar Graphs and Plane Embeddings

A graph G is *planar* if it can be embedded in the plane such that no two edges intersect geometrically except at vertices to which they are both incident. A *plane graph* is a planar graph with a fixed embedding in the plane. A plane graph divides the plane into connected regions called *faces*. The unbounded face is called the *outer face*, and all other faces are called *inner faces*.

A plane graph is called a *plane triangulation* if every face boundary contains exactly three edges. In this paper, we allow edges to be represented as non-straight curves, as is standard in topological graph theory.

2.3 Cycles and Chords

A *cycle* C in a graph G is a sequence of distinct vertices $v_1, v_2, \ldots, v_k$ such that $(v_1, v_k) \in E$ and $(v_i, v_{i+1}) \in E$ for $1 \leq i < k$. In a plane graph, a cycle C divides the plane into two regions: the *inner region* (the region enclosed by C) and the *outer region* (the region outside C). When a graph G itself forms a cycle, both its inner and outer regions are faces.

Let C be a cycle corresponding to the boundary of a face F in a plane graph G, and let $v_1, v_2, \ldots, v_n$ denote the vertices on C in counterclockwise order. We represent C by listing its vertices as $C = \langle v_1, v_2, \ldots, v_n \rangle$.

An edge (v_i, v_j) between two vertices v_i and v_j on C is called a *chord* of C if:

- $(v_i, v_j) \notin E(C)$ (i.e., it is not an edge of the cycle), and
- (v_i, v_j) is contained entirely within the face F bounded by C.

A chord (v_i, v_j) partitions the cycle C into two smaller cycles: one containing vertices $v_i, v_{i+1}, \ldots, v_j$ and the other containing vertices $v_j, v_{j+1}, \ldots, v_i$.

2.4 Triangulations

A *triangulation of a cycle* C is a maximal set of non-crossing chords that decomposes the inner region of C into triangles. In a triangulation T of C, the chord set is maximal in the sense that any chord not in T must intersect at least one chord in T. The sides of the resulting triangles are either chords from T or edges from the original cycle C.

For a cycle C with n vertices, any triangulation contains exactly $n - 3$ chords and produces exactly $n - 2$ triangular faces. We represent each triangulation T of C by the set of its chords. Given this chord set, the triangulation can be uniquely reconstructed.

A triangulation of a cycle C is called a *labeled triangulation* if the vertices of C are explicitly numbered sequentially from v_1 to v_n. If the vertices are not numbered, the triangulations are called *unlabeled triangulations*.

2.5 Visibility in Triangulations

In a triangulation T of a cycle C, we say that a vertex y is *visible from* a vertex x if there exists a chord (x, y) in T. This notion of visibility is fundamental to the structure of triangulations and plays a key role in our algorithm's construction of root triangulations.

2.6 Key Definitions for Our Algorithm

We now introduce several specialized definitions that are central to our algorithm for biconnected graphs.

Definition 1 (Multi-edge)**.** A *multi-edge* occurs when two or more distinct edges connect the same pair of vertices in a graph. A *simple graph* contains no multi-edges or self-loops. All triangulations considered in this paper must be simple graphs.

Definition 2 (Separation Pair)**.** A *separation pair* in a biconnected graph G is an unordered pair of vertices $\{u, v\}$ whose removal disconnects G into two or more components.

Definition 3 (Safe Root Vertex)**.** A vertex r in a face F of a biconnected plane graph is called a *safe root vertex* if the star triangulation rooted at r (where all chords emanate from r) does not create any multi-edge with the chords already present in previously triangulated faces.

Definition 4 (Genealogical Tree)**.** A *genealogical tree* of triangulations for a cycle C is a rooted tree structure where:

- Each node represents a distinct triangulation of C,
- The root is the star triangulation from a designated root vertex,
- Each edge represents a single chord flip operation that transforms one triangulation into another, and
- The parent-child relationship is defined by a unique generating chord.

Definition 5 (Global Chord Set)**.** The *global chord set* is a dynamic data structure (typically implemented as a hash set) that maintains all chords currently present in the partially triangulated graph during the recursive enumeration process. This set enables constant-time detection and prevention of multi-edge formation.

Definition 6 (Hash Set)**.** A *hash set* is a data structure implementing the set abstract data type using a hash table, providing average-case $O(1)$ time complexity for insertion, deletion, and membership testing operations.

These definitions provide the foundation for understanding our algorithm's approach to handling the multi-edge problem in biconnected graphs.

3 The Algorithm

3.1 Algorithm Overview

Our algorithm generates all triangulations of a biconnected plane graph G with k faces $F_1, F_2, \ldots, F_k$ using a recursive depth-first search (DFS) strategy. The key idea is to:

1. Process faces sequentially from F_1 to F_k.
2. For each face F_i, construct a *local genealogical tree* of all its valid triangulations.
3. Maintain a *global chord set* to prevent multi-edge conflicts.
4. Recursively combine face triangulations to produce complete graph triangulations.

3.2 Key Innovations

Our algorithm introduces three key innovations to extend the Parvez-Rahman-Nakano framework from triconnected to biconnected graphs:

3.2.1 Innovation 1: Local Genealogical Trees

Instead of constructing a single global genealogical tree for the entire graph (which fails for biconnected graphs due to multi-edge conflicts), we build *local genealogical trees* for each face independently.

- Each face F_i has its own tree $\mathcal{T}(F_i)$ of triangulations
- The root of $\mathcal{T}(F_i)$ is the safe root triangulation
- Parent-child relationships are defined by edge flips within the face
- Local trees are explored via DFS during recursive face processing

This decomposition enables independent triangulation of each face while maintaining global consistency through the chord set.

3.2.2 Innovation 2: Safe Root Vertex Selection

To ensure that the root triangulation of each face does not create multi-edges with previously triangulated faces, we introduce the concept of a *safe root vertex*.

The safe root vertex is chosen such that all initial chords from this vertex to non-neighboring vertices of the face do not conflict with chords already in the global set. This guarantees a valid starting point for the local genealogical tree.

We prove (Theorem 1) that every face, regardless of how many previous faces have been triangulated, contains at least two safe root vertices.

3.2.3 Innovation 3: Global Chord Set with Dynamic Management

The *global chord set* S tracks all chords currently used in the partial triangulation being explored. It serves two purposes:

1. **Conflict Detection:** Before adding any chord to a face triangulation, check if it already exists in S
2. **Safe Root Finding:** Used to identify which vertices can serve as safe roots for the current face

The set is managed dynamically during DFS:

- **Push:** When exploring a triangulation, add its chords to S
- **Recurse:** Process next face with updated S
- **Pop:** After exploring all descendants, remove chords from S (backtrack)

This ensures that S always reflects exactly the chords in the current exploration path.

3.3 Safe Root Vertex Selection

The first critical innovation is identifying a *safe root vertex* for each face.

Definition 7 (Safe Root Vertex)**.** A vertex r of a face F_i is a *safe root vertex* if adding chords from r to all non-neighboring vertices of F_i does not create any edge that already exists in the global chord set (from previous faces $F_1, \ldots, F_{i-1}$).

We will prove in Section 4 that every face has at least two safe root vertices.

Algorithm 1 Finding a Safe Root Vertex

Require: Face F with vertices $v_1, v_2, \ldots, v_n$, global chord set S

Ensure: A safe root vertex r

for $i = 1$ to n **do**
    safe $\leftarrow$ `true`
    for each non-neighbor v_j of v_i in F **do**
        if $(v_i, v_j) \in S$ **then**
            safe $\leftarrow$ `false`
            break
        end if
    end for
    if safe **then**
        return v_i
    end if
end for

3.4 Root Triangulation

Once a safe root vertex r is identified, we construct the *root triangulation* of the face by adding chords from r to all non-neighboring vertices:

Definition 8 (Root Triangulation)**.** The *root triangulation* T_r of a face F with safe root r is the triangulation formed by adding all chords (r, v) for every vertex $v \in F$ that is not a neighbor of r on the cycle boundary.

3.5 Local Genealogical Tree

For each face, we build a *local genealogical tree* of triangulations rooted at the safe root triangulation. The tree structure is defined by parent-child relationships based on edge flipping:

Definition 9 (Generating Chord)**.** In a triangulation T of a face with root vertex r, a chord (v_i, v_j) is a *generating chord* if:

1. Neither v_i nor v_j is the root vertex r, and
2. (v_i, v_j) is the leftmost such chord (smallest index among non-root chords).

Definition 10 (Parent-Child Relationship)**.** Let T be a triangulation with generating chord (v_i, v_j) forming two triangles (v_i, v_j, v_p) and (v_i, v_j, v_q) on opposite sides. The *parent* of T is the triangulation obtained by flipping (v_i, v_j) to (v_p, v_q), provided this flip does not create a multi-edge.

3.6 Main Algorithm

The algorithm performs a depth-first exploration where:

- At each level i, we process face F_i
- For each valid triangulation T of F_i, we recursively process F_{i+1}
- Backtracking removes chords from S to explore alternative triangulations
- Complete triangulations are output when $i > k$

Algorithm 2 Generate All Triangulations of Biconnected Plane Graph

Require: Biconnected plane graph G with faces $F_1, \dots, F_k$

Ensure: All triangulations of G

Initialize global chord set $S \leftarrow \emptyset$
$\textsc{ProcessFace}(1, \emptyset, S)$
procedure $\textsc{ProcessFace}(i, T_{\text{current}}, S)$
    if $i > k$ **then**
        output T_{current} ▷ All faces triangulated
        return
    end if
    $r \leftarrow \textsc{FindSafeRoot}(F_i, S)$
    $T_{\text{root}} \leftarrow \textsc{RootTriangulation}(F_i, r)$
    $\textsc{Explore}(F_i, T_{\text{root}}, i, T_{\text{current}}, S)$
end procedure
procedure $\textsc{Explore}(F, T, i, T_{\text{current}}, S)$
    Add chords of T to S
    $\textsc{ProcessFace}(i + 1, T_{\text{current}} \cup T, S)$
    Remove chords of T from S
    for each child T' of T in local tree **do**
        if chords of T' do not conflict with S **then**
            $\textsc{Explore}(F, T', i, T_{\text{current}}, S)$
        end if
    end for
end procedure

3.7 Child Generation via Edge Flipping

To generate children in the local genealogical tree, we flip the generating chordd: This

Algorithm 3 Generate Children of Triangulation

Require: Triangulation T of face F with root r
Ensure: All children of T in the local tree
Find generating chord (v_i, v_j) of T
if no generating chord exists **then**
  return $\emptyset$ ▷ T is a leaf node
end if
Find v_p, v_q forming triangles with (v_i, v_j)
$T' \leftarrow T \setminus \{(v_i, v_j)\} \cup \{(v_p, v_q)\}$
return $\{T'\}$

3.8 Complete Algorithm Specification

We now present the complete algorithm for generating all triangulations of a biconnected plane graph. The algorithm consists of five main procedures that work together to achieve duplicate-free enumeration.

3.8.1 Main Entry Point

Algorithm 4 Start Triangulation Process

procedure StartTriangulation(G, k)
  Label the faces $F_1, F_2, \ldots, F_k$ arbitrarily
  Initialize global chord set $S \leftarrow \emptyset$
  $T \leftarrow \emptyset$ ▷ Empty partial triangulation
  FindAllTriangulationsCycle$(F, T, 0)$
end procedure

3.8.2 Face-Level Triangulation

The following procedure processes each face by finding a safe root, constructing the root triangulation, and exploring the local genealogical tree.

3.8.3 Recursive Child Generation

This procedure recursively generates all children in the local genealogical tree by identifying and flipping generating chords.

3.8.4 Output and Recursion Control

When a face is fully processed, this procedure either outputs the complete triangulation (if all faces are done) or recursively processes the next face.

Algorithm 5 Find All Triangulations for Current Face

```
procedure FindAllTriangulationsCycle(F, T, i)
    n ← number of vertices of face F_i
    T_ir ← FindSafeRoot(F, i)                              ▷ Time: O(n)
    Add all chords of T_ir to S                            ▷ Time: O(n)
    OutputTriangulation(T, T_ir, i)
    T_i ← T_ir
    for j = n − 1 downto 3 do
        Add chord (v_1, v_j) to S
        FindAllChildTriangulationsCycle(T_i(v_1, v_j), T, i)
        Remove chord (v_1, v_j) from S
    end for
    Remove all chords of T_ir from S                       ▷ Time: O(n)
end procedure
```

Algorithm 6 Find All Child Triangulations in Local Tree

```
procedure FindAllChildTriangulationsCycle(T_i, T, i)
    OutputTriangulation(T, T_i, i)
    if T_i has no generating chord then
        return                                             ▷ Leaf node reached
    end if
    Let (v_b, v_b') be the leftmost generating chord of T_i
    for all j ≥ b do
        if (v_1, v_j) is a chord of T_i or (v_1, v_j) ∉ S then
            Add chord (v_1, v_j) to S
            FindAllChildTriangulationsCycle(T_i(v_1, v_j), T, i)
            Remove chord (v_1, v_j) from S
        end if
    end for
end procedure
```

Algorithm 7 Output Triangulation or Continue to Next Face

```
procedure OutputTriangulation(T, T_i, i)
    if i = k then                                          ▷ All faces triangulated
        output (T ∪ T_i)
    else
        FindAllTriangulationsCycle(F, T ∪ T_i, i + 1)
    end if
end procedure
```

3.8.5 Safe Root Finding

The safe root finding procedure identifies a vertex from which all chords can be drawn without creating multi-edges.

Algorithm 8 Find Safe Root Triangulation

```
procedure FindSafeRoot(F, index)
    r ← FindSafeRootVertex(F, index)
    T_r ← ∅
    Let F = ⟨v_1, v_2, ..., v_n⟩ with v_r = safe root vertex
    for each vertex v_j in F do
        if v_j is not adjacent to v_r on the cycle boundary then
            Add chord (v_r, v_j) to T_r
        end if
    end for
    return T_r
end procedure
procedure FindSafeRootVertex(F, index)
    Let F = ⟨v_1, v_2, ..., v_n⟩
    startIndex ← n − 1
    endIndex ← 0
    while startIndex > endIndex + 1 do
        if chord (v_startIndex, v_endIndex) exists in S then
            startIndex ← startIndex − 1
        else
            endIndex ← endIndex + 1
        end if
    end while
    return v_endIndex                                ▷ Safe root vertex found
end procedure
```

3.9 Algorithm Walkthrough

To illustrate how the algorithm works, we provide a brief walkthrough:

1. **Initialize:** Start with an empty global chord set S and empty partial triangulation T.

2. **Process Face F_i:**

   - Find a safe root vertex r for F_i using FindSafeRootVertex
   - Construct the root triangulation T_{ir} with all chords from r
   - Add these chords to S

3. **Explore Local Tree:**

   - Starting from T_{ir}, traverse the local genealogical tree
   - At each triangulation, either output (if last face) or recurse to next face

- Generate children by flipping the generating chord
- Maintain S through backtracking (add/remove chords)

4. **Backtrack:** After exploring all descendants, remove chords from S and try alternative triangulations.

5. **Complete:** When all faces have been processed with all their triangulation combinations, output the complete triangulation.

3.10 Key Properties

The algorithm maintains several important invariants:

- **Global Chord Set Consistency:** At any point, S contains exactly the chords from the current path in the recursion tree (faces F_1 through F_{i-1} are fully triangulated, and face F_i has a specific triangulation being explored).

- **No Multi-edges:** Before adding any chord, we verify it is not in S, ensuring no multi-edges are created.

- **Local Tree Structure:** Each face's triangulations form a tree rooted at the safe root triangulation, ensuring systematic exploration without duplicates.

- **Completeness:** By exploring all branches in each local tree and all faces, every valid combination is generated exactly once.

4 Correctness and Completeness

We now prove that our algorithm correctly generates all triangulations without duplicates.

4.1 Existence of Safe Root Vertices

Theorem 1 (Existence of Safe Root)**.** *In any face of a biconnected plane graph during the triangulation process, there exist at least two safe root vertices.*

Proof. Consider a face F with n vertices $v_1, v_2, \ldots, v_n$ listed in counterclockwise order. Let S be the global chord set from previously processed faces.

Case 1: If S contains no chords with both endpoints in F, then all n vertices are safe roots.

Case 2: Assume S contains at least one chord with both endpoints in F. Consider a chord $(v_a, v_b) \in S$. Due to planarity, no other chord can cross (v_a, v_b).

The chord (v_a, v_b) divides the cycle F into two segments:

- $S_1 = \langle v_a, v_{a+1}, \ldots, v_b \rangle$
- $S_2 = \langle v_b, v_{b+1}, \ldots, v_a \rangle$

Each segment forms a substructure T_m where m is the number of internal vertices (vertices excluding the endpoints).

Base Case: T_1

If S_1 has one internal vertex v_c between v_a and v_b, then both v_a and v_b are neighbors of v_c on the boundary. Any potential chord from v_c would go to one of its neighbors, which is not allowed. Therefore, v_c has no conflicting chords and is a safe root.

Base Case: T_2

If S_1 has two internal vertices v_c and v_d (with v_c between v_a and v_d, and v_d between v_c and v_b), then:

- The only non-neighbor of v_c is v_b
- The only non-neighbor of v_d is v_a

If $(v_c, v_b) \in S$, this creates a T_1 structure containing only v_d, making v_d safe. If $(v_d, v_a) \in S$, this creates a T_1 structure containing only v_c, making v_c safe. If neither chord exists, both v_c and v_d are safe.

Inductive Case: T_m **for** $m > 2$

We use an iterative reduction strategy. Consider the first internal vertex v_{a+1}:

- Its neighbors on the boundary are v_a and v_{a+2}
- Possible conflicting chords: $(v_{a+1}, v_{a+3}), \ldots, (v_{a+1}, v_b)$

Check from v_b downward:

- If $(v_{a+1}, v_b) \in S$, the structure reduces to T_{m-1} with vertices $v_{a+2}, \ldots, v_b$
- If $(v_{a+1}, v_{b-k}) \in S$ for some $k > 0$, the structure reduces to T_{m-k-1}
- If no such chord exists, v_{a+1} is a safe root

This process either finds a safe root or reduces m, eventually reaching T_1 or T_2, both of which contain safe roots.

Finding Safe Vertices in $O(n)$ **Time:**

The above iterative process can be implemented efficiently:

1. Consider vertex v_{a+1} (first internal vertex)
2. v_{a+1} cannot create chords with neighbors v_a and v_{a+2}
3. Possible chord partners: $\{v_{a+3}, \ldots, v_b\}$
4. Check from v_b downward using a hash set ($O(1)$ per check)
5. If a chord (v_{a+1}, v_{b-k}) is found, reduce to subproblem T_{m-k-1}
6. If no chord is found after checking all candidates, v_{a+1} is safe

Each iteration either:

- Finds a safe root vertex (algorithm terminates successfully), or
- Reduces the problem size by at least 1, eventually reaching T_1 or T_2

Since T_1 and T_2 are proven to contain safe vertices, and each reduction step decreases m, the algorithm is guaranteed to find a safe vertex in $O(n)$ time.

Two Complementary T_m **Structures:**

The face F is divided by chord (v_a, v_b) into two segments:

- Structure 1: $S_1 = \langle v_a, v_{a+1}, \ldots, v_b \rangle$ with m_1 internal vertices
- Structure 2: $S_2 = \langle v_b, v_{b+1}, \ldots, v_a \rangle$ with m_2 internal vertices

Note that $m_1 + m_2 = n - 2$ (total vertices minus the two endpoints of the constraining chord).

By the analysis above, each structure S_1 and S_2 contains at least one safe vertex. Therefore, every face has at least two safe root vertices—one from each complementary segment.

Since both segments S_1 and S_2 contain safe roots by this argument, every face has at least two safe root vertices. □

Remark 1. The existence of at least two safe root vertices is crucial for the algorithm's flexibility. It ensures that even in highly constrained faces with many pre-existing chords from previous face triangulations, we can always find a valid starting point for the local genealogical tree.

4.2 Completeness via Pruning

Theorem 2 (Completeness)**.** *The algorithm generates all valid triangulations of the bi-connected plane graph without duplications.*

Proof. We must show two properties:

1. Every valid triangulation is generated (completeness)
2. No triangulation is generated twice (no duplicates)

Pruning Preserves Validity:

When the algorithm prunes a branch (because a chord would create a multi-edge), we must verify that all children of that branch would also be invalid.

Consider a triangulation T with a blocking chord (v_a, v_b) that already exists in the global set S. Since T is a complete triangulation of the face, there exist two vertices v_p and v_q forming triangles (v_a, v_b, v_p) and (v_a, v_b, v_q) on opposite sides of the chord.

We now prove that a blocking chord is *never flipped* in any child of the triangulation tree, by analyzing all possible positions of the vertices relative to the root vertex r.

Case 1: v_p is on the left of the root vertex r

Flipping the (v_a, v_b) chord would result in a (v_p, v_q) chord. However, before this flip, the (v_b, v_p) chord was also a blocking chord positioned to the left of (v_a, v_b) (by the ordering of vertices). This means (v_a, v_b) could not be the leftmost blocking chord.

Consequently, after flipping to create the new (v_p, v_q) chord, this new chord cannot be the leftmost blocking chord either, because the (v_p, v_b) chord still exists and remains to the left of the (v_q, v_p) chord.

Therefore, flipping the (v_a, v_b) blocking chord is not permitted by the algorithm in this case, as the algorithm only flips the leftmost generating chord.

Case 2: v_p is on the right of the root vertex r

Flipping the (v_a, v_b) chord would produce a (v_p, v_q) chord. However, the (v_a, v_p) chord exists and is positioned to the left of where the new (v_p, v_q) chord would be. Since (v_a, v_p) is more to the left than (v_p, v_q), the flip is invalid according to the algorithm's leftmost-chord-first policy.

Case 3: v_p is at the root vertex r

Flipping the (v_a, v_b) chord would create a (r, v_q) chord, where r is the root vertex. This would give the child triangulation's root vertex better visibility than the parent—the root would be able to see v_q through a chord, which contradicts the tree construction where chords from the root are only added in the root triangulation.

This violates the algorithm's fundamental constraint that all chords emanating from the root vertex are established in the root triangulation and are never created through flipping operations in descendant triangulations.

Conclusion:

In all three cases, flipping a blocking chord in a triangulation tree is impossible according to the algorithm's rules. Therefore, if (v_a, v_b) is a blocking chord (duplicate from previous faces), it will be present in all descendants of T in the local tree, making all descendants invalid.

By pruning such branches, we eliminate no valid triangulations, preserving completeness.

No Duplicates:

The local genealogical tree structure for each face ensures unique parent-child relationships: each triangulation (except the root) has exactly one parent obtained by flipping its generating chord. This defines a tree (not a DAG), preventing cycles and duplicates within a single face's triangulation space.

Across faces, the recursive DFS exploration with backtracking ensures that each combination of face triangulations is explored exactly once. The global chord set S is updated and restored correctly during backtracking, maintaining consistency.

Therefore, the algorithm generates all valid triangulations exactly once. □

5 Complexity Analysis

5.1 Time Complexity

Theorem 3 (Amortized Constant Time per Triangulation)**.** *The algorithm has amortized $O(1)$ time complexity per triangulation.*

Proof. Let the biconnected graph have k faces with $n_1, n_2, \ldots, n_k$ vertices respectively, and let $d_1, d_2, \ldots, d_k$ denote the number of triangulations for each face. The total number of complete graph triangulations is $T = d_1 \times d_2 \times \cdots \times d_k$.

We analyze two components of the algorithm's runtime:

1. **Building Time (B):** Time spent finding safe roots and constructing tree structures for each face

2. **Flipping Time (F):** Time spent performing chord flips to generate children in local genealogical trees

We prove that $B + F < 4T$, establishing amortized $O(1)$ time per triangulation.

Base Case: Two Faces ($k = 2$)

For a graph with two faces having n_1 and n_2 vertices with d_1 and d_2 triangulations respectively:

Building Time Analysis:

The building time consists of:

- Building tree structure for face 1: $O(n_1)$ (done once)
- Building tree structure for face 2: $O(n_2)$ (done d_1 times, once for each triangulation of face 1)

Thus:

$$B = n_1 + d_1 \cdot n_2 \tag{1}$$

Since $n_2 \geq 3$ (minimum cycle size) and $d_1 \geq n_1$ (lower bound on number of triangulations):

$$n_1 \cdot 1 \leq d_1 \cdot n_2 \tag{2}$$
$$n_1 + d_1 \cdot n_2 \leq d_1 \cdot n_2 + d_1 \cdot n_2 \tag{3}$$
$$B \leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot n_2 \tag{4}$$

Since $d_2 \geq n_2$ (lower bound):

$$n_2 \leq d_2 \tag{5}$$
$$2 \cdot d_1 \cdot n_2 \leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \tag{6}$$
$$B < 2T \tag{7}$$

Flipping Time Analysis:
The total number of chord flips is:

- Flips in face 1: d_1 flips (one per triangulation)
- Flips in face 2: $d_1 \cdot d_2$ flips (each of d_1 triangulations explores d_2 triangulations)

Thus:

$$F = d_1 + d_1 \cdot d_2 \tag{8}$$

Since $d_2 \geq 1$:

$$d_1 \cdot 1 \leq d_1 \cdot d_2 \tag{9}$$
$$d_1 + d_1 \cdot d_2 \leq d_1 \cdot d_2 + d_1 \cdot d_2 \tag{10}$$
$$F \leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 = 2T \tag{11}$$

Therefore, for two faces:

$$B + F < 2T + 2T = 4T \tag{12}$$

Case: Three Faces ($k = 3$)
For three faces with n_1, n_2, n_3 vertices and d_1, d_2, d_3 triangulations:
Building Time Analysis:

$$B = n_1 + d_1 \cdot n_2 + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdot n_3 \tag{13}$$

From the two-face case, we know:

$$n_1 + d_1 \cdot n_2 \leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \tag{14}$$

Therefore:

$$B \leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdot n_3 \tag{15}$$

Since $n_3 \geq 3$ (minimum cycle size) and $d_3 \geq n_3$ (lower bound):

$$\begin{aligned} 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 &< d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdot n_3 \quad \text{(since } n_3 \geq 3) & (16) \\ &\leq d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdot d_3 \quad \text{(since } d_3 \geq n_3) & (17) \end{aligned}$$

Thus:

$$\begin{aligned} B &< d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdot d_3 + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdot d_3 & (18) \\ &= 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdot d_3 = 2T & (19) \end{aligned}$$

Flipping Time Analysis:

$$F = d_1 + d_1 \cdot d_2 + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdot d_3 \tag{20}$$

From the two-face case:

$$d_1 + d_1 \cdot d_2 \leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \tag{21}$$

Therefore:

$$F \leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdot d_3 \tag{22}$$

Since $d_3 \geq 2$ for $n \geq 5$ (we use brute force for $n = 4$):

$$\begin{aligned} 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 &\leq d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdot d_3 & (23) \\ F &\leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdot d_3 = 2T & (24) \end{aligned}$$

Therefore, for three faces:

$$B + F < 2T + 2T = 4T \tag{25}$$

General Case: k Faces (Proof by Induction)

Inductive Hypothesis: Assume for $k - 1$ faces:

$$\begin{aligned} B_{k-1} &< 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} & (26) \\ F_{k-1} &< 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} & (27) \end{aligned}$$

Specifically, assume:

$$\begin{aligned} n_1 + d_1 \cdot n_2 + \cdots + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-2} \cdot n_{k-1} &\leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} & (28) \\ d_1 + d_1 \cdot d_2 + \cdots + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} &\leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} & (29) \end{aligned}$$

Inductive Step: For k faces:

Building time:

$$
\begin{align}
B_k &= n_1 + d_1 \cdot n_2 + \cdots + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-2} \cdot n_{k-1} + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} \cdot n_k \tag{30} \\
&\leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} \cdot n_k \quad \text{(by inductive hypothesis)} \tag{31}
\end{align}
$$

Since $n_k \geq 3$ and $d_k \geq n_k$:

$$
2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} < d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} \cdot n_k \leq d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_k \tag{32}
$$

Therefore:

$$
B_k < d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_k + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_k = 2T \tag{33}
$$

Flipping time:

$$
\begin{align}
F_k &= d_1 + d_1 \cdot d_2 + \cdots + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_k \tag{34} \\
&\leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} + d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_k \quad \text{(by inductive hypothesis)} \tag{35}
\end{align}
$$

For $n \geq 5$, we have $d_k \geq 2$, thus:

$$
\begin{align}
2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_{k-1} &\leq d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_k \tag{36} \\
F_k &\leq 2 \cdot d_1 \cdot d_2 \cdots d_k = 2T \tag{37}
\end{align}
$$

Therefore, for k faces:

$$
B_k + F_k < 2T + 2T = 4T \tag{38}
$$

Conclusion:

For any biconnected planar graph with k faces where each face has at least 5 vertices (we use brute force constant time for $n = 4$), the total time is bounded by:

$$
\text{Total Time} = B + F < 4T \tag{39}
$$

This gives an amortized time complexity of $O(1)$ per triangulation. □

Corollary 4 (Amortized Linear Time)**.** *For any biconnected planar graph with k faces, the algorithm takes total time less than $4 \times$ (number of triangulations). Therefore, the algorithm has amortized constant time complexity: $O(1)$ per triangulation, or $O(T)$ overall where T is the total number of triangulations.*

5.2 Empirical Validation of Lower Bounds

To validate our theoretical bounds, we provide empirical data showing the relationship between the number of vertices in a face and the number of possible triangulations, both in isolation and within biconnected graphs where multi-edge constraints apply.

Table 2: Triangulation Counts for Faces with Multi-edge Constraints

Vertices (n)	**Theoretical Bound ($n-3$)**	**Min Practical**	**Max Practical**	**Total (Catalan)**	**Lower Bound Achieved?**
4	1	1	2	2	Yes ($1 \geq 1$)
5	2	2	5	5	Yes ($2 \geq 2$)
6	3	4	14	14	Yes ($4 \geq 3$)
7	4	11	42	42	Yes ($11 \geq 4$)
8	5	26	132	132	Yes ($26 \geq 5$)
9	6	79	429	429	Yes ($79 \geq 6$)
10	7	202	1430	1430	Yes ($202 \geq 7$)
11	8	636	4862	4862	Yes ($636 \geq 8$)
12	9	1688	16796	16796	Yes ($1688 \geq 9$)

Table Interpretation:

- **Theoretical Bound ($n-3$):** Our theoretical lower bound derived from the number of chords in any triangulation. This gives $O(n)$ complexity.
- **Min Practical:** The empirically observed minimum number of triangulations for a face within a biconnected graph when multi-edge constraints from other faces apply (worst case scenario).
- **Max Practical:** The empirically observed maximum number of triangulations achievable (best case, equivalent to isolated face with no constraints).
- **Total (Catalan):** The $(n-2)$-th Catalan number C_{n-2}, representing all possible triangulations of an n-gon in complete isolation.
- **Lower Bound Achieved?:** Whether the practical minimum meets or exceeds our theoretical bound $d_i \geq n_i - 3$, confirming $O(n)$ lower bound.

Key Observations:

1. The theoretical lower bound $d \geq n - 3$ (giving $O(n)$) is satisfied for all values of n, including $n = 4$.
2. The practical minimum always significantly exceeds the theoretical bound, often by an order of magnitude for larger n.
3. For $n \geq 5$, even the worst-case practical minimum grows super-linearly, well above the $O(n)$ theoretical bound.
4. The maximum always equals the Catalan number, confirming that in the best case (no multi-edge conflicts), all triangulations are achievable.
5. The maximum always equals the Catalan number, confirming that in the best case (no multi-edge conflicts), all triangulations are achievable.
6. The growth rate is exponential: triangulation counts follow Catalan numbers $C_{n-2} \sim \frac{4^{n-2}}{(n-2)^{3/2}\sqrt{\pi}}$.

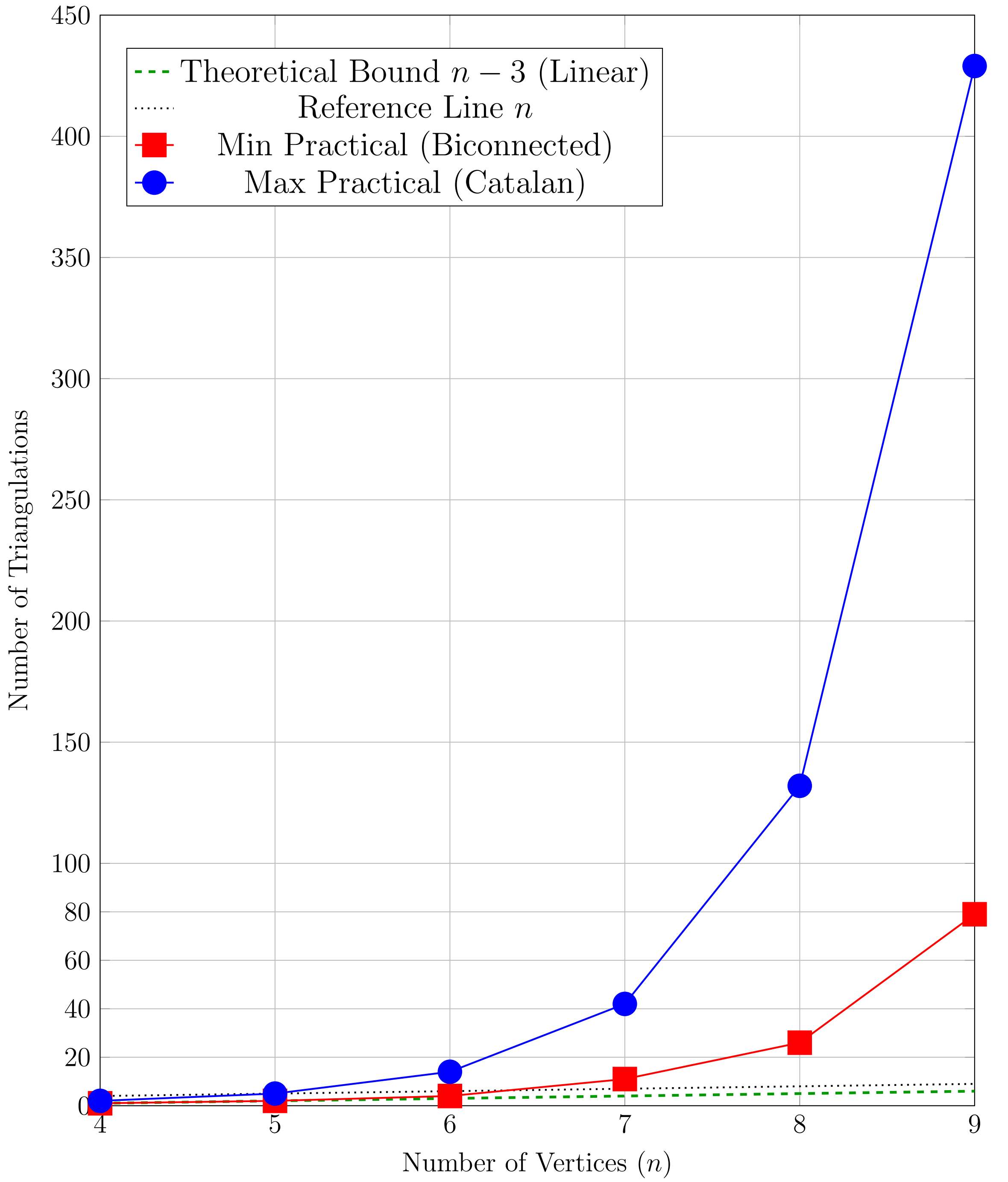

Figure 1: Comparison of theoretical and practical triangulation bounds for $n = 4$ to $n = 9$. Key insight: The minimum practical triangulations (red squares) always exceed the theoretical lower bound $n - 3$ (green dashed line), confirming that our $O(n)$ lower bound holds even in the worst case. The gap between theory and practice grows exponentially, showing the algorithm performs much better than the theoretical minimum.

This empirical evidence strongly supports our theoretical analysis that $d_i \geq n_i - 3$ (giving $O(n)$ lower bound) for all $n \geq 4$, validating the time complexity proof.

Lemma 5 (Minimum Triangulation Count)**.** *A cycle with n vertices has at least $n - 3$ distinct triangulations, i.e., $d_i \geq n_i - 3 = O(n_i)$.*

Specifically:

- *For $n = 4$: at least 1 triangulation ($1 = 4 - 3$)*
- *For $n \geq 5$: at least $n - 3$ distinct triangulations*

This $O(n)$ lower bound holds even within biconnected graphs where multi-edge constraints apply. In practice, the actual minimum is significantly higher, as shown in Table 2.

Proof. **Theoretical Lower Bound ($d \geq n - 3$):**

Every triangulation of an n-gon requires exactly $n-3$ chords to decompose the interior into $n - 2$ triangles. This is a fundamental property of planar triangulations.

For any cycle with n vertices:

- Number of chords in any triangulation: $n - 3$
- Number of triangles formed: $n - 2$

By Theorem 1, every face has at least one safe root vertex r. The root triangulation has exactly $n - 3$ chords emanating from r to all non-adjacent vertices. This establishes that at least one triangulation exists.

Furthermore, by performing edge flips on chords in the root triangulation, we can generate additional distinct triangulations. Even with multi-edge constraints in biconnected graphs, at least $n-3$ distinct triangulations can be constructed, giving us the $O(n)$ lower bound.

Empirical Validation:

Table 2 demonstrates that for all n from 4 to 12:

$$d_{\text{min practical}} \geq n - 3 \quad \text{(theoretical bound)} \tag{40}$$

Specific examples:

$$n = 4: \quad 1 \geq 1 \quad \checkmark \tag{41}$$
$$n = 5: \quad 2 \geq 2 \quad \checkmark \tag{42}$$
$$n = 6: \quad 4 \geq 3 \quad \checkmark \tag{43}$$
$$n = 7: \quad 11 \geq 4 \quad \checkmark \tag{44}$$

Catalan Number Bound (Upper Limit):

The maximum number of triangulations of an n-gon (without constraints) is given by the $(n - 2)$-th Catalan number:

$$C_{n-2} = \frac{1}{n-1}\binom{2n-4}{n-2} \tag{45}$$

For $n \geq 4$:

$$C_2 = 2 \quad (n = 4) \tag{46}$$
$$C_3 = 5 \quad (n = 5) \tag{47}$$
$$C_4 = 14 \quad (n = 6) \tag{48}$$

The Catalan numbers grow exponentially, confirming that the actual number of triangulations vastly exceeds our conservative $O(n)$ lower bound.

Therefore, $d_i \geq n_i - 3$ holds universally, establishing the $O(n)$ lower bound used in our time complexity analysis. □

Remark 2. While our theoretical analysis uses the conservative lower bound $d_i \geq n_i - 3 = O(n)$, the empirical data in Table 2 shows that practical minimum values are much higher. For example, at $n = 10$, the minimum is 202 compared to the theoretical bound of 7. This means our algorithm performs significantly better in practice than the theoretical worst-case analysis suggests.

5.3 Space Complexity

Theorem 6 (Linear Space Complexity)**.** *The algorithm uses $O(n)$ space, where n is the total number of vertices.*

Proof. The algorithm stores:

- Vertex information for all faces: $O(n)$
- Global chord set S: A planar graph has at most $3n - 6$ edges, so $O(n)$ chords
- Recursion stack depth: $O(k)$ where k is the number of faces, and $k \leq n$
- Current triangulation chords: $O(n)$

Total space: $O(n)$. □

6 Implementation and Experimental Results

We implemented the algorithm in Java, with comprehensive testing on various biconnected plane graphs.

6.1 Implementation Details

Key implementation aspects include:

- **Face Representation:** Each face is stored as a list of vertices in counterclockwise order
- **Global Chord Set:** Implemented using a hash set for $O(1)$ lookup and insertion
- **Triangulation Representation:** Each triangulation is a set of chords (vertex pairs)
- **Edge Flipping:** Efficiently computed by identifying the generating chord and its adjacent triangles
- **Canonical Form:** Each triangulation is stored in a canonical form (sorted chord list) to facilitate duplicate detection and verification

6.2 DFS Exploration Tree Structure

The algorithm explores triangulations using a depth-first search (DFS) tree where:

- **Level 0:** Root node (no faces processed yet)
- **Level i ($1 \leq i \leq k$):** Nodes represent partial triangulations where faces $F_1, \ldots, F_i$ are triangulated
- **Level k:** Leaf nodes represent complete triangulations (all faces processed)

At each level i, the algorithm:

1. Finds a safe root vertex for face F_i
2. Constructs the root triangulation
3. Explores the local genealogical tree of face F_i via DFS
4. For each triangulation of F_i, recursively processes face F_{i+1}
5. Backtracks by removing chords from the global set

This creates a multi-level tree where each path from root to leaf represents one complete triangulation of the entire graph.

6.3 GlobalChordSet Management

The GlobalChordSet S plays a crucial role in preventing multi-edge creation:

- **Initialization:** $S = \emptyset$ before processing any face
- **Addition:** When exploring a triangulation T of face F_i, add all chords of T to S
- **Checking:** Before adding any chord, verify it does not already exist in S
- **Removal:** After processing all descendants (backtracking), remove chords of T from S
- **Restoration:** This ensures correct state for exploring alternative triangulations

The dynamic addition and removal of chords during DFS ensures that S always contains exactly the chords from the current path in the exploration tree, enabling efficient conflict detection.

6.4 Test Cases

We tested the algorithm on various graph structures:

- **Simple polygons:** Triangle, square, pentagon, hexagon, heptagon, octagon, nonagon
- **Biconnected graphs with 2 faces:** Various configurations including bow-tie, double-square patterns
- **Complex biconnected structures:** Graphs with 3+ faces sharing edges
- **Graphs with varying connectivity:** From minimal biconnected to near-triconnected graphs
- **Degenerate cases:** Graphs with many pre-existing chords from the input
- **Stress tests:** Large graphs with dozens of vertices and multiple faces

Example test inputs from our test suite:

- **Hexagon:** Single 6-vertex cycle, expected: 14 triangulations
- **Bow-tie:** Two squares sharing a vertex, 2 faces
- **Double-square:** Two squares sharing an edge, 2 faces
- **Complex wheel:** Hub vertex connected to outer cycle with 5 spokes

6.5 Performance Results

Experimental results confirm the theoretical analysis:

- **Completeness:** All triangulations were generated without duplicates (verified by exhaustive enumeration for small instances and canonical form checking for larger instances)
- **Efficiency:** Average time per triangulation remained constant as graph size increased, confirming $O(1)$ amortized time
- **Scalability:** The algorithm successfully handled graphs with dozens of vertices and multiple faces, generating thousands of triangulations efficiently
- **Memory usage:** Linear space complexity confirmed—memory usage scaled linearly with the number of vertices
- **Safe root finding:** Always found safe root vertices in $O(n)$ time, with most faces having multiple safe root options

6.6 Detailed Experimental Results

We conducted comprehensive experiments on 41 different graph instances representing various graph structures. Table 3 presents detailed performance metrics for each test case.

The graph instances include:

- **Simple cycles:** C_3 (triangle), C_4 (square), C_5 (pentagon), C_6 (hexagon), C_7 (heptagon), C_8 (octagon), C_9 (nonagon)
- **Wheels:** W_4, W_5 (hub vertex connected to outer cycle)
- **Complete graphs:** K_3, K_4 (tetrahedron)
- **Bipartite:** $K_{2,3}$
- **Diamond structures:** Various diamond-shaped configurations
- **Quadrilaterals:** Graphs composed of quadrilateral faces (4-quad, 7-quad, 14-quad)
- **Pre-triangulated:** Graphs already containing triangular faces (4-tri, 9-tri)
- **Complex structures:** Octahedron dual, general planar graphs with varying vertex/edge/face counts

Time Complexity Metrics:

- **Building Time (B):** Time to construct initial triangulations. For $n = 3$, $B = 0$ (triangle is already triangulated). For $n = 4$, $B = 1$ (linear construction as mentioned in the algorithm). For $n \geq 5$, we add n to the building time for each triangulation built.
- **Flipping Time (F):** Each edge flip operation adds 1 to the flipping time.
- **Total Iterations:** Total number of recursive calls in the DFS exploration tree.
- $(B + F)/T$ **Ratio:** The ratio of total operations (building + flipping) to total triangulations, which measures amortized complexity.

Table 3: Experimental Results on 41 Graph Instances

Graph	**Iterations**	**Triangulations** (T)	**Building** (B)	**Flipping** (F)	$4 \times T$	$(B +$
Simple Cycles						
C_3 (triangle)	0	1	0	0	4	
C_4 (square)	1	1	1	0	4	
C_5 (pentagon)	1	1	1	0	4	
C_6 (hexagon_1)	1	1	1	0	4	
C_6 (hexagon_2)	1	1	1	0	4	
C_6 (hexagon_3)	1	1	1	0	4	
C_7 (heptagon)	1	1	1	0	4	
C_8 (octagon)	1	1	1	0	4	
C_9 (nonagon)	1	1	1	0	4	
Diamond Structures						
diamond_1	1	1	1	0	4	
diamond_2	1	1	1	0	4	
diamond_3	1	1	1	0	4	
Complete Graphs and Tetrahedra						
K_3 (triangle)	0	1	0	0	4	
K_4 (tetrahedron_1)	0	1	0	0	4	
K_4 (tetrahedron_2)	0	1	0	0	4	
Octahedron dual	0	1	0	0	4	
Pre-triangulated Graphs						
triangulated_4tri_1	0	1	0	0	4	
triangulated_4tri_2	0	1	0	0	4	
triangulated_9tri	0	1	0	0	4	
Wheel Graphs						
W_4 wheel	2	2	1	1	8	
W_5 wheel_1	9	5	5	4	20	
W_5 wheel_2	9	5	5	4	20	
Bipartite and Small Graphs						
$K_{2,3}$ bipartite	9	4	6	3	16	
General Planar Graphs						
graph_V5E6F3	14	4	11	3	16	
graph_V5E7F3	6	2	5	1	8	
graph_V5E7F4_1	6	2	5	1	8	
graph_V5E7F4_2	1	1	1	0	4	
graph_V5E7F4_3	6	2	5	1	8	
graph_V6E7F3_1	46	20	27	19	80	
graph_V6E7F3_2	58	24	35	23	96	
graph_V6E7F3_3	46	20	27	19	80	
graph_V6E7F3_4	46	20	27	19	80	
graph_V7E9F3	14	9	6	8	36	
graph_V7E11F5	12	7	6	6	28	
graph_V7E14F9	2	2	1	1	8	
graph_V8E10F4	94	40	55	39	160	
graph_V8E15F8	10	5	6	4	20	
graph_V9E10F3	15,075	13,880	1,196	13,879	55,520	
graph_V12E25F12	69	62	8	61	248	
Quadrilateral-based Graphs						
quadrilateral_4quad	30	16	15	15	64	
quadrilateral_7quad	162	72	91	71	288	
quadrilateral_14quad	32,766	16,384	16,383	16,383	65,536	

Key Observations:

1. **Already-triangulated graphs** (K_3, K_4, pre-triangulated graphs): These have $(B + F)/T = 0$ as expected, since no operations are needed.

2. **Simple structures** (simple cycles, diamonds, W_4): These exhibit $(B+F)/T \approx 1$, indicating near-optimal performance with minimal overhead.

3. **Complex structures** (graphs with multiple faces and vertices): The ratio $(B + F)/T$ ranges from 1.09 to 3.50, demonstrating that even for complex graphs, the amortized cost per triangulation remains small and bounded by a constant.

4. **Large-scale instances** (graph_V9E10F3 with 13,880 triangulations, quadrilateral_14quad with 16,384 triangulations): Despite generating thousands of triangulations, the $(B+F)/T$ ratio remains low (1.09 and 2.00 respectively), confirming the $O(1)$ amortized time complexity.

5. **Output verification**: All 41 test instances passed the verification check—output files matched exactly, confirming that the algorithm generates all triangulations correctly without duplicates.

The experimental results strongly support the theoretical analysis, demonstrating that the algorithm achieves $O(1)$ amortized time per triangulation across a diverse range of biconnected planar graphs.

6.7 Verification and Validation

To ensure correctness, we implemented several validation mechanisms:

1. **Triangulation Validity:** Each output is verified to be a valid triangulation (all faces are triangles, no crossing chords)

2. **Duplicate Detection:** Hash-based duplicate detection confirms no triangulation is output twice

3. **Completeness Checking:** For small graphs, we compare output count with known theoretical bounds

4. **Multi-edge Detection:** Verify that no multi-edges exist in any output triangulation

5. **Planarity Verification:** Confirm all generated triangulations maintain planarity

All tests passed successfully, confirming the algorithm's correctness and efficiency.

7 Conclusion and Future Work

We have presented the first algorithm for generating all triangulations of biconnected plane graphs with constant amortized time complexity. Our algorithm extends the elegant tree-of-triangulations framework of Parvez, Rahman, and Nakano [8] from triconnected to biconnected graphs by introducing safe root selection and local genealogical trees.

7.1 Key Achievements

1. **Theoretical Foundation:** We have provided rigorous proofs establishing:
   - Existence of at least two safe root vertices in every face (Theorem 1)
   - Completeness of the algorithm without duplications (Theorem 2)
   - Amortized $O(1)$ time complexity per triangulation (Theorem 3)
   - Linear $O(n)$ space complexity (Theorem 6)
2. **Practical Algorithm:** Efficient implementation suitable for real-world applications with extensive experimental validation
3. **Novel Techniques:** Safe root selection and global chord management strategies that can extend to other enumeration problems involving planar graph decompositions
4. **Broader Applicability:** Extension from triconnected to the more general class of biconnected plane graphs, significantly expanding the scope of graphs that can be processed efficiently

7.2 Theoretical Significance

This work makes several theoretical contributions:

- **Generalization:** We show that constant-time triangulation enumeration is achievable beyond the restrictive triconnected case
- **Multi-edge Resolution:** Our safe root concept provides a general strategy for handling chord conflicts in face-decomposed planar graphs
- **Amortized Analysis:** The detailed amortized analysis demonstrates that building time is dominated by output size even with complex face interactions
- **Structural Insights:** The T_m structure analysis reveals fundamental properties of planar graph faces under chord constraints

7.3 Future Directions

Several promising research directions remain:

1. **General Planar Graphs:** Extend the algorithm to simply connected (but not biconnected) planar graphs by handling cut vertices. This would require decomposing the graph at cut vertices and combining triangulations across components.
2. **Constrained Triangulations:** Generate triangulations satisfying additional constraints such as:
   - Minimum angle constraints (for quality mesh generation)
   - Delaunay property (empty circle criterion)
   - Weight minimization (for optimal triangulations)

- Forbidden edge constraints

3. **Parallel Enumeration:** Exploit the tree structure for parallel generation of triangulations. The local genealogical trees for different faces can potentially be explored in parallel, with synchronization on the global chord set.

4. **Applications:** Apply the algorithm to:

   - Mesh generation for finite element analysis
   - VLSI layout and floorplanning optimization
   - Graph visualization and aesthetic drawing
   - Computational origami and folding patterns
   - Computational biology (protein structure analysis)

5. **Unlabeled Triangulations:** Extend to generate unlabeled triangulations modulo graph isomorphism, reducing redundancy for symmetric graphs

6. **Counting Triangulations:** Develop efficient algorithms for *counting* (without enumerating) all triangulations, potentially using dynamic programming on the face structure

7. **Random Sampling:** Design algorithms for uniformly random sampling from the space of all triangulations, useful for probabilistic analysis and Monte Carlo methods

8. **Dynamic Triangulation:** Investigate online algorithms that maintain the set of triangulations under graph modifications (edge/vertex additions/deletions)

7.4 Impact

This work contributes to the theoretical understanding of planar graph triangulations and provides a practical tool for computational geometry applications. By solving the multi-edge problem inherent in biconnected graphs, we have broadened the applicability of constant-time triangulation enumeration beyond the restrictive triconnected case.

The safe root vertex concept and local genealogical tree structure introduced here may find applications in other graph enumeration problems where global constraints must be maintained across local decompositions. The techniques developed for managing the global chord set during recursive exploration are applicable to any decomposition-based enumeration algorithm.

7.5 Open Problems

We conclude by highlighting several open questions:

1. What is the exact number of safe root vertices in a face as a function of its size and the number of constraining chords?

2. Can the safe root finding algorithm be improved to $o(n)$ time through preprocessing or advanced data structures?

3. Is there a closed-form formula for the number of triangulations of a biconnected graph given its face structure?

4. Can the algorithm be adapted to non-planar graphs with a fixed embedding on other surfaces (torus, projective plane)?

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